

A Narrative of Homological Algebra

While modern homological algebra is phrased in the language of categories, its machinery evolved from two distinct 19th-century sources which converged in the mid-20th century.

The algebraic lineage begins around 1890 with David Hilbert’s Invariant Theory. Having established the Basis Theorem, that every ideal in a polynomial ring is finitely generated, Hilbert went on to study the relations (“syzygies”) between those generators, and the relations among the relations. He constructed a chain of free modules to resolve them:

$$0 \rightarrow F_n \rightarrow \cdots \rightarrow F_1 \rightarrow F_0 \rightarrow M \rightarrow 0$$

Hilbert proved the *Syzygy Theorem*, showing that for polynomial rings, this chain of relations eventually terminates in an exact sequence of free modules. However, this theory encountered a significant obstruction when applied to rings with singularities (such as coordinate rings of singular curves). In these non-regular settings some module always fails to terminate, its resolution continuing infinitely (free modules, of course, still resolve in a single step). This failure shifted the mathematical focus from simply computing invariants to essentially classifying the severity of a singularity by the infinite length of its resolution.

Parallel to this, in the 1930s, number theorists like Emmy Noether, Richard Brauer, and Helmut Hasse were attempting to classify division algebras (generalizations of the quaternions) over number fields. They classified these algebras using “Crossed Products,” which relied on complex systems of functions called “Factor Sets” ($c : G \times G \rightarrow K^\times$). While they successfully defined the *Brauer Group* of a field to organize these algebras, the calculations were notoriously opaque. The “Factor Sets” satisfied a messy algebraic identity that seemed arbitrary, acting as a computational blocker that obscured the underlying structure of the fields they were studying.

Simultaneously, from 1895 onwards, the topological roots of the subject were forming as Henri Poincaré classified manifolds. He decomposed spaces into simplices and represented their boundaries using incidence matrices. He defined Betti numbers as the ranks of these matrices. The Betti numbers on their own have a blind spot, however: rank obliterates “torsion,” so a twisted shape like the projective plane looks numerically identical to a trivial one (both have rank 0 in dimension 1, since $H_1(\mathbb{R}P^2; \mathbb{Z}) = \mathbb{Z}/2\mathbb{Z}$ is all torsion). Poincaré saw this himself and introduced torsion coefficients in his 1899 *Complément*; what was missing was not the information but a structure to hold it.

In 1925, Emmy Noether revolutionized this view. She realized that the matrices topologists were diagonalizing were actually presentations of abelian groups. By shifting focus from the numerical rank to the *Homology Group* itself ($\ker \partial / \text{im } \partial$), she captured the torsion information, effectively “algebraizing” the topology. She showed that the matrix was not just a calculator for a number, but a presentation of a structure.

The convergence of these fields occurred in the 1940s when algebraists attempted to classify *Group Extensions*. Saunders Mac Lane and Samuel Eilenberg attempted to classify these extensions and rediscovered the same “Factor Sets” used by Brauer and Hasse. They discovered that the algebraic identity these functions satisfied was *identical* to the boundary formula for a 2-simplex in topology; essentially they realized they were calculating $H^2(G, N)$ (see [1] for this computation in the EYNTKA series). This was the turning point: it proved that “cohomology” was not just a property of geometric shapes, but a fundamental algebraic structure that arose whenever one tried to “extend” one object by another, whether in topology, group theory, or number theory.

The grand unification arrived in 1956 when Cartan and Eilenberg realized that the topological concept of “boundaries” and the algebraic concept of “extensions” were instances of the same phenomenon: the *failure of exactness*. They observed that while Hilbert’s resolution is exact, applying a functor (like the tensor product or Hom) usually destroys that exactness. They realized that the “homology” groups were simply the mathematical terms required to repair this broken exactness. This birth of the *Derived Functor* (Tor and Ext) transformed the field from the study of static objects to the study of how functors distort structure. To build this machinery, they faced a technical blocker: Hilbert’s reliance on “Free Modules.” Free modules resolve the variable that Tor and $\text{Hom}(-, N)$ need, but the right derived functors of a left-exact functor in its *covariant* variable, which is what $\text{Ext}(M, -)$ is, must be computed by resolving in the other direction, and free modules cannot do that. To achieve the necessary symmetry, they replaced the specific condition of “Freeness” with the categorical properties of *Projectivity* and *Injectivity*. This allowed them to define derived functors for any ring, regardless of whether a basis existed.

With this machinery established, the period from 1955 to 1980 saw these newly developed tools used to solve the original obstructions in geometry and number theory. In geometry, Jean-Pierre Serre proved that a Noetherian local ring is regular (non-singular) if and only if it has finite global homological dimension. This transformed the “problem” of infinite resolutions into a precise detection tool: the non-terminating resolution was effectively the algebraic signature of a geometric singularity. Alexander Grothendieck later introduced *Local Cohomology* ($H_{\mathfrak{m}}^i$) to quantify the depth and severity of these singularities. Poincaré Duality was separately restored to singular spaces by the Intersection Homology of Goresky and MacPherson, which came at the problem through stratified spaces rather than through local cohomology.

In number theory, the mysterious “Factor Sets” of the 1930s were identified as elements of the second Galois Cohomology group, $H^2(\text{Gal}(L/K), L^\times)$. This realization allowed Emil Artin and John Tate to rewrite Class Field Theory entirely in the language of cohomology. The obscure identities of the past were revealed to be standard cohomological relations, and the *Tate Cohomology* groups ($\hat{H}^i$) were developed specifically to handle the arithmetic of finite groups, solving the classification problems that had stalled the previous generation (see [2] for the EYNTKA series exposition of modern class field theory).

References

- [1] Nathanael Chwojko-Srawley. *Everything You Need To Know About Galois Cohomology*. EYN-TKA. 2025. URL: https://nathanaelsrawley.com/assets/pdfs/books/EYNTKA_galois_cohomology.pdf.
- [2] Nathanael Chwojko-Srawley. *Everything You Need To Know About Class Field Theory*. URL: https://nathanaelsrawley.com/assets/pdfs/notes/EYNTKA_class_field_theory.pdf.